Aquí tienes la **traducción al inglés** del texto:

The fall of the Berlin Wall did not unite Europe. Rather, it replaced the East–West division with other, much subtler separations. The most obvious new borders were the national ones created by the disintegration of multinational states; but the end of the communist regime also made it clear that every European country was divided by less official borders, separating rich and poor, young and old, the rural world and the urban one. The rise of "nationalism," which took many forms, did not only separate nations from one another, but also those who identified themselves in national terms from those belonging to the transnational elite. Internationalization was a complex process that created new divisions while eroding older ones. After 1989, even history itself created new divisions in Europe. Recent experience, especially that of the communist regime, was remembered differently in each country, which in turn affected the way the more distant experience of the Second World War was remembered. Thus, comforting narratives of nations and movements united in the "anti-fascist" struggle were sometimes replaced by other, more unsettling accounts.

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After the fall of the Berlin Wall, many people spoke of the "reunification" of Europe; but this was a misleading concept. The fact that differences were no longer marked by barbed wire did not mean that they had ceased to exist. Communist countries had been socially and economically different, differences that could now be expressed in political terms: the end of communism often involved a redrawing of borders. Many intellectuals in Eastern or Central Europe emphasized the "Western" credentials of their particular country rather than the creation of a united Europe. Kundera called his country the "kidnapped West": liberating the victim of the kidnapping implied increasingly isolating the kidnapper.

The fall of the communist regime in Eastern Europe coincided with several major changes that were also taking place in Western Europe. A treaty approved in February 1992, following the Maastricht summit of December 1991, transformed the European Community into a European Union, within whose borders there was freedom of movement for people and goods, as a prelude to monetary union, scheduled for 1999. The new position of Eastern Europe posed new and interesting problems for the leaders of the European Union. This association had always had a purely Western character, originally intended mainly to contain communism; and, curiously, some politicians—especially in Great Britain—who had previously been skeptical about European integration now suggested that Europe needed a broader and more flexible form of association.

The former communist countries were now assessed according to whether or not they met a list of requirements drawn up by Western governments and bankers—a list that set Poland, Hungary, and the Czech Republic apart from their less fortunate neighbors. Slovenia was the best-placed candidate for Western recognition among all the former regions of the Yugoslav federation, while the separation between Czechs and Slovaks matched the expectations of Western investors, who had placed 92 percent of their investments in the Czech part of the country before the split.

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One of the most significant burdens weighing on the former communist states was the divide between urban and rural areas. Prague, Budapest, and Warsaw increased their prosperity as various Western companies based their operations in these cities. In 1991, the unemployment rate in Prague was 0.32 percent, while the national rate was 6.61 percent. Differences between population groups were also reflected in politics. Generally, parties most closely associated with economic change achieved better results in large cities.

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But the most striking new border in the post-communist world was generational. Young people were generally more favorable to change: they were the most likely to adapt to the new circumstances by learning Western languages or starting private businesses. Russian opinion on economic reform depended more on age than on occupation or level of education, and other non-economic opportunities could also be important. Young people valued the possibility of traveling and watching Western films. By contrast, those over fifty had become accustomed to living with the certainties of the old regime, and some consciously supported it: for any East German, it had been relatively easy to leave the country until 1961. Many older people believed that the former regimes, despite all their defects, were ultimately ones they themselves had built. In the 1990s, all certainties were called into question. The gerontocratic hierarchies that had guaranteed good jobs disappeared, and inflation eroded pensions. The conflict between those who felt themselves to be an integral part of a united Europe and those who still felt they belonged to the East was not simply a matter of geography; it could even be found within the same family.

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As European countries aligned themselves with the new international economy, a new class of Europeans emerged. The well-dressed young people flitting around executive cafés in international airports, brandishing EU passports and American Express cards, were probably more culturally international than any previous group of Europeans since the aristocratic diplomats of the nineteenth century.

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Members of the European elite were also united by having a special kind of relationship with the United States. Many of them worked, at least for a time, in American companies, especially investment banks or management consultancies, and a solid knowledge of American management techniques and of the Anglo-Saxon world of supposedly savage free-market competition was considered one of the fundamental requirements for success. However, the European elite did not simply adopt all American values. It also displayed a clear disdain for many aspects of American popular culture. The impact of Paris Disneyland on the European masses and on the elite was completely different. For the masses, it meant Goofy and Mickey Mouse; for the elite, it meant the business philosophy of Philippe Bourguignon, president of the company until 1997, who believed that his executives should be trained at Harvard Business School and McKinsey rather than in the French civil service.

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The European elite was not tied to any particular country; indeed, its members were more likely to identify with a city than with a nation. London was particularly important. By the end of the century, central London had overtaken Hamburg as the richest place in Europe—the average salary was more than double that of the European Union. London offered ambitious young Europeans a place to experience "Anglo-Saxon capitalism" and very high fees, all less than three hours from Paris's Gare du Nord. As a financial center, it dwarfed all other European cities, and in a sense even American ones: London had more U.S. banks than New York. London's role was a faithful reflection of how nation-states were being replaced by other units that were simultaneously smaller and larger. Although London was famous for its cosmopolitanism and dynamism, it was located in a country famous for its insularity and sclerosis. Ambitious young people flocking to the City were more likely to have visited Kathmandu than Wolverhampton.

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The fall of communism did not create a united Europe, but rather a multiplicity of overlapping Europes. The gap between London and Prague narrowed, but that between London and Cornwall, or between Prague and Ostrava, widened. Within small areas, different generations, classes, and ethnic groups lived very different lives. A European banker with a poor sense of direction who took the Paris–London Eurostar and got lost at the Gare du Nord might end up in La Chapelle: instead of being surrounded by well-dressed executive travelers, he would find himself next to the "Goutte d'Or," an area famous in working-class mythology but now easily mistaken for an Algerian neighborhood. Similarly, if he took the correct exit at Waterloo Station, he would cross a bridge with views of St Paul's Cathedral and Big Ben and reach his meeting at Citibank's central London headquarters on the Strand within minutes. But if he went the other way and walked for a few minutes, he would find himself in Elephant and Castle, a poor area whose architecture recalls East Berlin.

For the most privileged Europeans, the fall of communism created a borderless Europe that bore a striking resemblance to the Europe the privileged had known before 1914. For the less privileged, borders were more important than at any time since the 1940s. Roma from the former Czechoslovakia moved back and forth between two newly created states that refused to grant them citizenship (the town council of Ústí nad Labem in the Czech Republic built a wall to marginalize its Roma population), and Kosovo Albanians saw Serbian police tear up their identity documents before forcing them across the border. The borders of race, age, and class divided cities even in the relatively prosperous countries of Western Europe. At a time when a wealthy white European could travel from Paris to Prague with almost no checks by border guards, many young Black people from Sheffield did not dare visit the Meadowhall shopping center because they knew security guards would ask them to leave.

Richard Vinen, *A History in Fragments: Europe in the Twentieth Century*, 2000.